

Q. Define the term right headed compound

All these compounds have a verb as the rightmost element, and also that, with most of them, the activity denoted by the compound as whole is a variety of the activity denoted by that rightmost element. Let us call these compounds right-headed, the rightmost element being the head. Most English compounds are right-headed, but not all. As with verbs, it is the type with the preposition over as its first element that seems most productive, in that new adjectives of this type, with the meaning ‘too X’, are readily acceptable: for example, overindignant, oversmooth.

Example:

1. noun–adjective (NA): sky-high, coal-black, oil-rich
2. adjective–adjective (AA): grey-green, squeaky-clean, red-hot
3. preposition–adjective (PA): under full, overactive

Q. Explain the concept of phonotactic constraint with one example.

Phonotactics is a branch of phonology that deals with restrictions in a language on the permissible combinations of phonemes. Phonotactic constraints

twelfths /twelfθs/

/s/ + /t/ + /j/ (not in most accents of American English)

/s/ + /p/ + /j ɪ l/

/s/ + /k/ + /j ɪ l w/

At their most basic, phonotactic constraints determine the minimum length of content words in particular languages. For example, in Mohawk, each content word contains at least two syllables (Michelson 1988, cited by Hayes 1995: 47). Other languages require that content words consist of at least a heavy syllable. In Mayan languages, roots are predominantly of the shape CVC and in Bantu they are generally CVCV. In Semitic languages, roots consist of three consonants: CCC.

Q. Explain the concept of bracketing paradox briefly.

There are three kinds of bracketing paradox

1. One kind of bracketing paradox is the situation in which the formal properties of one of the units requires it to combine with a particular base, but the meaning of the word suggests that it combines with a unit smaller than the base. Take the word international. The formal properties of the word require the prefix inter- to combine with the adjective national, as the word *internation does not exist in English

2. Another kind of paradox comes when a unit combines with a word but semantically modifies not only the word, but a bigger structure in which the word is included. Consider the expression Vulgar Latinist. This does not refer to Latinist who happens to be Vulgar, but to someone who studies Vulgar Latin

3. Last kind of paradox take into account phonological factors. In the case unhappy, there is a paradox in the sense that the meaning of the adjective (more unhappy) require the suffix –er to combine with the trisyllabic adjective unhappy. It is known that generally trisyllabic adjective take the adverb more in the comparative. Avoiding this phonological infraction implies proposing that –er combines with happy and then un- is combines with happier. This gives the wrong semantics as it mean; not more happy’ which the speaker does not interpret. There is no analysis for bracketing in the general case which cover the three paradoxes

Q. Explain the direct and indirect route with reference to morphological processing of a compound word.

The insight that complex words are often stored as such in the lexicon raises the question of how they are processed. There are two ways in which a complex word can be processed, the direct route, and the indirect route. When perception of complex words is involved, the direct route means that we do not first parse the complex word, but go directly to its representation in the lexicon, in order to access its meaning. The indirect route means that a complex word is parsed into constituent morphemes, and that its meaning is computed after we have gained access to its constituent morphemes and their meanings. There are data that might be interpreted as showing that language users try to parse wods into morphological subconstituents

Q. Three types of polysemy

There are many types of polysemy.

(1)mass/count distinction

a. I love watermelon. (mass) b. I sold three watermelons. (count)

(2) Figure–ground reversal

a. Hugh broke the window. b. The kids climbed through the window.

(3) Container– contained alternation

a. A hot glass put under cold water will shatter. b. Franny downed the glass in two seconds flat.

Q. Bath breath wreath chnge into verb

Word	Verb
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Bath	Baths
Breath	Breathed
Wreath	Wreathe

Q. active vocabulary and Passive vocabulary

The number of words that you understand. The active vocabulary, the set of words one uses in language production is much smaller. A dictionary is conservative by nature, and hence it will contain words from the past that nobody uses any more. Mental lexicon will always be ahead of the dictionary, and contains a substantial number of words that are not listed in dictionaries. New words (neologisms) are coined continuously, and dictionaries always lag behind.

Q. Differentiate between competence n performance

The lexeme performance denotes the same activity, surely. Does that mean that perform and performance belong to the same word class? Perform has four forms: perform, perform, performing and performed. Performance has two: performance and performances

Competence is Chomsky's (1965) term for the knowledge that speakers and hearers have of their language. Some people would say that productivity is not part of linguistic competence either, because, in order for something to be considered part of competence, it must be structural and 'all or none'. Productivity is a probabilistic notion, and some linguists believe that if something is probabilistic, it is not structural and hence is not part of the grammar. Under this view, productivity would have to be treated as a phenomenon that is related to a speaker's competence, but not part of it.

Q. Syntax

According to the traditional view, the relation between morphology and syntax is the following: while morphology builds up word forms—typically by combining roots with other roots and with affixes, but also by applying other operations to them. Syntax takes fully inflected words as input and combines them into phrases and sentences. The division of labour between morphology and syntax is thus perfect: morphology only operates below the word level whereas syntax only operates above the word level. These two components of grammar are ordered in strict sequence, such that the syntax takes over after the morphology has done its work.

Q. One principle of morphological analysis

Morphological Analysis (MA) can also be referred to as 'problem solving'. It is visually recorded in a morphological overview, often called a 'Morphological Chart'. The method was developed in the 1960s by Fritz Zwicky, an astronomer from Switzerland.

Principle 1

- Forms with the same meaning and the same sound shape in all their occurrences are instances of the same morpheme.

Q. define language And sign

Ferdinand de Saussure (1857–1913), one of the first modern linguists, believed that language was a system of signs. He defined a linguistic sign as an arbitrary pairing between what he called the signifiant ‘signifier’, a particular sequence of sounds, and the signifié ‘signified’, the concept that is denoted by the sound sequence. These three terms, sign, signifier, and signified, are still standard in linguistics. Saussure (1969) distinguished between motivated and unmotivated signs. A sign is motivated to the extent that by inspection you can get clues as to what it means. A walk signal at a crosswalk is an example of a motivated sign, because the stylized image of a person walking indicates whether you should or should not cross the street. A stop sign is partially motivated. Signs can lose their motivation: consider the name of the basketball team, the Los Angeles Lakers. Motivation is not all-or-nothing, and signs can be partially motivated.

Q. Principle of IC analysis its 2 flaws

Principal:

The principal of IC analysis is to cut a sentence into two and to continue with the smallest indivisible unit, the morphemes are reached.

Flaws:

1. It does not indicate what kind of what kind of elements those constituent parts are; it does not even identify except implication.
2. It does not tell us how to form new sentences.

Q. Inflection and derivation

Within a lexeme-based theory: derivation gives new lexemes, and inflection gives you the forms of a lexeme that are determined by syntactic environment. What exactly does this mean, and is there really a need for such a distinction? The first question about the distinction is whether there is any formal basis for distinguishing the two types of morphology. Can we tell them apart because they do different things to words?

Difference:

- Inflection does not change the core lexical meaning or the lexical category of the word to which it applies. Derivation does the former and may do the latter.
- Inflection is the realization of morphosyntactic features, i.e., those that are relevant to the syntax, such as case and number. Derivation is not.

- Inflectional morphology is more productive than derivational morphology.
- Derivational morphology tends to occur closer to the root or stem than inflectional morphology.
- Derived lexemes are more likely to be stored in the lexicon than inflected forms.

Q. Phonotactic constraints

Phonotactics is a branch of phonology that deals with restrictions in a language on the permissible combinations of phonemes.

Phonotactic constraints

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Q. Make plural of (datum , formula and cactus)

Singular	Plural
Datum	Data
Cactus	Cactuses or cacti
Formulas	Formulas

Q. Explain linguistic junk

Rudes (1980) and Lass (1990) have both raised the question of what to do with “linguistic left-overs” (Rudes’s term) or “linguistic junk” (Lass’s term). In both cases, it has to do with morphemes that lose their semantic content or morphosyntactic function as a result of language change and are left as contentless, functionless strings of phonemes floating around in the system. They show that languages are in general intolerant of useless elements, and speakers reanalyze them as having a new role. Lass calls this process linguistic exaptation, extending a term of evolutionary biology to the study of language change.

Q. explain indirect route with morphological process of compound words.

The insight that complex words are often stored as such in the lexicon raises the question of how they are processed. There are two ways in which a complex word can be processed, the direct route, and the indirect route. When perception of complex words is involved, the direct route means that we do not first parse the complex word, but go directly to its representation in the lexicon, in order to access its meaning. The indirect route means that a complex word is parsed into constituent morphemes, and that its meaning is computed after we have gained access to its constituent morphemes and their meanings. There are data that might be interpreted as showing that language users try to parse words into morphological subconstituents.

Q. explain zero derivation

Zero derivation, is a kind of word formation involving the creation of a word (of a new word class) from an existing word (of a different word class) without any change in form, which is to say, derivation using only zero. Zero-derivation changes the lexical category of a word without changing its phonological shape. A word formed by zero-derivation or any other productive derivational process becomes lexicalized: The English verbs: chair, leaf, ship, table, and weather. Mail from the French is another example: *I'm going to mailbox this parcel.

Q. headed and headless compounds with examples

In English grammar, a compound noun (or nominal compound) is a construction made up of two or more nouns that function as a single noun. With somewhat arbitrary spelling rules, compound nouns can be written as separate words like tomato juice, as words linked by hyphens like sister-in-law or as one word like schoolteacher. A compound noun whose form no longer clearly reveals its origin, such as bonfire or marshall, is sometimes called an amalgamated compound; many place names (or toponyms) are amalgamated compounds — for example, Norwich is the combination of "north" and "village" while Sussex is a combination of "south" and "Saxons." One interesting aspect of most compound nouns is that one of the origin words is syntactically dominant. This word, called the headword, grounds the word as a noun, such as the word "chair" in the compound noun "easychair."

Q. Problems in Lexical Semantics (5)

The main problem of lexical semantics is that the meanings of individual lexemes are highly diverse. We call this the problem of polysemy. As an example, take the verb lose.

□ They lost their passports;

• Jake lost his job;

• Sarah lost her husband to cancer;

• I lost my temper;

- we both lost ten pounds.

But all of the meanings of lose reflected here are related – they are all instances of the same lexeme. Because lose has more than one related meaning, we say that it is polysemous.

Q. define Polysemy (3)

The most fundamental aspect of a word's meaning is that it refers to some entity or relation (real or imaginary) in the world. We can refer to this entity or relation as the word's semantic type. Formal approaches to grammar have provided us with terminology that allows us to make even more fine-tuned distinctions between words. The word reptile refers to all individuals in the world that are reptiles. Verbs like respect or love refer to relationships between individuals.

There are many types of polysemy.

(1) mass/count distinction

- a. I love watermelon. (mass)
- b. I sold three watermelons. (count)

(2) Figure–ground reversal

- a. Hugh broke the window.
- b. The kids climbed through the window.

Q. Make noun phrases with

Determiner+noun: the village, a house, our friends

Qualifier+ noun: some people, a lot of money

Q. Explain the concept of regular inflection of noun.

Inflection, the way we change a word's form to reflect things like tense, plurality, gender, etc., is usually governed by consistent, predictable rules. This is known as regular inflection. For example, we usually create the past simple tense of verbs by adding “-d” or “-ed” (as in heard or walked, which also function as the verbs' past participles), and we normally create plurals by adding “-s” or “-es” to the ends of nouns (as in dogs, cats, watches, etc.).

Q. write two common features of syntax in all languages? (if find anything else related to this please do share)

Syncretism is common cross-linguistically, and it raises a number of questions relevant to morphological theory. In the Bulgarian imperfect and aorist paradigms, the second person singular and third person singular forms are identical. (The aorist is a past tense.)

Write any three types of constraints that limit Morphological Productivity?

1. Phonological
2. Morphological
3. Syntactic

Define term Grammaticalization.

‘The process by which a frequently used sequence of words or morphemes become automated as a single processing unit’ (Bybee 2003: 603). [G]rammaticalization is that subset of linguistic changes through which lexical item in certain uses becomes a grammatical item, or through which a grammatical item becomes more grammatical’ (Hopper and Closs Traugott 1993: 2).

An example of the change from lexical to grammatical item is the development of verbs into auxiliaries. In English the verb to have not only functions as a main verb, with the meaning “to possess”, but also as an auxiliary in perfect tense forms.

The verb can has lost its status as lexical verb completely, and functions as a modal auxiliary only. In these examples grammaticalization does not create morphology. This does happen if a (lexical or grammatical) morpheme becomes an affix

Distinguish between content and function words.

Or

Separate the content words from this list (1) Baby. (2) was (3) publicize (4) sleep (5) this

Content Words	Function Words
Nouns: baby, bargain , Josianne Pronouns: I , him , our Verbs: publicize , hurtle , sleep Verbs: am , was , should Adjectives: peaceful , quick , bright Adverbs: readily , carefully, baby, publicize, sleep	Demonstratives: this , those Adverbs:3 very , not Prepositions: in , by

Q. define the term exocentricity in the content of morphology.

Exocentric construction cannot be substituted for any of its element and thus has no head. For example:

Is not an expansion of with a or paper.

Not an expansion of any of its parts.

An exocentric construction cannot be substituted for any of its element and thus has no head.

Q. Name the categories for which nouns are inflected.

The four basic categories are listed below:

Persons: baker, dancer, gambler, driver

Animals: pointer, retriever, warbler, trotter

Material objects: blotter, eraser, fertilizer, shutter

Immaterial objects: reminder, clincher, thriller, eyeopener

2.Hocett theory item process's

And item and arrangements

Hockett (1954) distinguishes between two basic approaches to morphology, which he calls item-and-arrangement and item-and-process. Both are associated with American structuralist linguistics, codified by Bloomfield (1933), but continue to be important today.

Item-and-arrangement and item-and-process represent two distinct points of view. Item-and-arrangement proceeds from a picture of each language as a set of elements and the patterns in which those elements occur. The item-and-process picture gives no independent status to the items, which arise instead through the construction of the patterns. In the "Item and Arrangement" model there are variant stems or affixes. Words are built up of arrangement of morphemes, which are the base units and are arranged linearly. Morphology is the arrangement of these morphemes into a particular order or structure. For example, books results from the concatenation of the two morphemes book and -s. I&P is an approach in which complex words result from the operation of processes on simpler words. In the "Item and Process" model the structure of a word is specified by a series of operations. I & A is more linear; I & P is more sequential. Both models involve morphemes. Working in an I&P model, we might say that 'books' results when the lexeme book undergoes the function 'make plural'. With word analysis, using techniques for breaking words down into their component morphemes, which are the items. In regular cases, this function will add the segment /-z/ (cf. photos, lions), which is realized as /-s/ after most voiceless segments (cf. giraffes), and as /e z/ after sibilants and affricates (cf. roses). Everything you can express in I&A can be expressed in I&P and almost anything you can express in I&P can be expressed in I&A. Additive functions like this one are easily recast in the I&A model.

Agent Noun	Verb → -er	Noun → work
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A simple English example of a lexical function within the item-and-process model, which we happen to be most comfortable with is below. The following function creates agent nouns from verbs:

Examples: (X)V er]N)

- think]V er]N,

- runn]V er]N,
- fli]V er]N,
- hunt]V er]N

Agent noun Verb -er Teacher, then, is represented as follows Teach -er This tree illustrates how the affix -er attaches to the stem work to form the agent noun Teacher.

Q. Point out agent and predicate compliment in sentence

John smokes cigrate

John (agent)

Smokes (predicate)

Cigarette (predicate)

Regular inflection of noun

Inflection, the way we change a word's form to reflect things like tense, plurality, gender, etc., is usually governed by consistent, predictable rules. This is known as regular inflection. For example, we usually create the past simple tense of verbs by adding "-d" or "-ed" (as in heard or walked, which also function as the verbs' past participles), and we normally create plurals by adding "-s" or "-es" to the ends of nouns (as in dogs, cats, watches, etc.).

Morphology productivity

A given morphological pattern is more productive than another is to say that there is a higher probability of a potential word in the first pattern being accepted in the language than there is of a potential word in the second pattern. English nouns make their plural in a number of different ways, as can be seen in the following set of words. The suffix -th creates nouns from adjectives (e.g., deep → depth, wide → width). a meaning that is similar to -ness. Length means the same thing that longness would mean; decidedth ,mean the same thing as decidedness. But only-ness can be called productive. Studying productivity, we study phenomena and distinctions like these. One question we need to ask about productivity is whether it is part of linguistic competence. Competence is Chomsky's (1965) term for the knowledge that speakers and hearers have of their language. Some people would say that productivity is not part of linguistic competence either, because, in order for something to be considered part of competence, it must be structural and 'all or none'. Productivity is a probabilistic notion, and some linguists believe that if something is probabilistic, it is not structural and hence is not part of the grammar. Under this view, productivity would have to be treated as a phenomenon that is related to a speaker's competence, but not part of it.

Q.verb examples start with Re

Represent

Regain

Replay

Reused

Recover

Reschedule

Q. five names of inflection categories

While most languages have morphological inflection of some sort, the actual inflectional categories can differ quite widely across languages. In this section, we briefly survey both the most common categories and some of the ways languages may differ. It is convenient to make a first broad cut into nominal and verbal categories, though the nominal categories often appear on adjectives and verbs through concord. The most common nominal categories are number, gender and case.

Name parts of speech

- Noun
- Adjective
- Verb
- Adverb
- Conjunction
- Preposition
- Interjection
- Article
- Adjective
- Pronoun

Plural word without plural suffix

1. Children
2. Men
3. Formulae
4. Cacti
5. Fish

Write the 5 words suffix -hood and -ish,

hood	ish	ity	th
Selfhood	Impoverish	SUPPRESSIBILITY	Seventeenth
Babyhood	extinguish	Incompatibility	Growth
Girlhood	Accomplish	availability	Breadth
Maidhood	Cartoonish	Instrumentality	Twelfth
kinghood	Establish	conventionality	Hundredth

Q. descriptive grammar

A fully explicit grammar that exhaustively describes the grammatical constructions of a language is called a descriptive grammar.

Q. Problems faced by lexical

The main problem of lexical semantics is that the meanings of individual lexemes are highly diverse. We call this the problem of polysemy. As an example, take the verb lose.

□ They lost their passports;

• Jake lost his job;

• Sarah lost her husband to cancer;

• I lost my temper;

• we both lost ten pounds

Q. chomsky view parts of language

Universal Grammar is the theory developed by Noam Chomsky that states that all languages are identical at some level of analysis. Tremendous influence on the field of linguistics, and most linguists agree with Chomsky that language has an innate component. A key phrase in the definition of Universal Grammar that we have provided is “at some level of analysis.” What is the level of analysis at which languages are identical? At which levels do languages differ? More specifically, are inflectional categories universal? In one sense, inflectional categories are universal.

Irregular inflectional plural form

There are many instances in which the way a word is inflected doesn't seem to follow any rules or conventions at all—this is known as irregular inflection. For example, the past simple tense of the verb go is went (rather than goed, as regular inflection would suggest), and its past participle is gone. Irregular inflection affects nouns, adjectives, adverbs, and (most commonly) verbs

child > children,

tooth > teeth,

man > men

Q. Suppletion

In morphology, suppletion is the use of two or more phonetically distinct roots for different forms of the same word, such as the adjective bad and its suppletive comparative form worse. Adjective: suppletive. According to Peter O. Müller et al., the term "strong suppletion is used where the allomorphs are highly dissimilar and/or have different etymological origins," as in the adjective forms good and best. "We speak of weak suppletion if some similarity is discernible," as in the words five and fifth.

Examples and Observations

"Bad - worse is a case of suppletion. Worse is clearly semantically related to bad in exactly the same way as, for example, larger is related to large, but there is no morphological relationship between the two words, i.e. there is no phonetic similarity between them." (J.R. Hurford et al., Semantics: A Coursebook, 2nd ed. Cambridge University Press, 2007) "Suppletion is said to take place when the syntax requires a form of a lexeme that is not morphologically predictable. In English, the paradigm for the verb be is characterized by suppletion. Am, are, is, was, were, and be have completely different phonological shapes, and they are not predictable on the basis of the paradigms of other English verbs. We also find suppletion with pronouns. Compare I and me or she and her. Suppletion is most likely to be found in the paradigms of high-frequency words. . ."

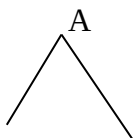
How do the units organize in the word undecidable. Write the process in steps.

undecidable three units ; Prefix Un-, a verbal root, decid(e), a suffix, -able

Undecidable roughly means: 'cannot be decided. Why the meaning of the word is 'cannot be decided' and not 'can be not decided'?

In the first case we refer to an entity that, in any case and not matter how hard one tries, cannot be decided; In the second case, we refer to something that can be decided, but which does not need to be. The way in which a speaker uses the word undecidable is the first and never the second. How can we account for this? The way the units are combined with each other. We need to represent how the units are organized inside the word, the structure of the word. The position of the un- morpheme is a decisive factor.

In the first case it modifies the suffix – able and in the second it relates to the verb.

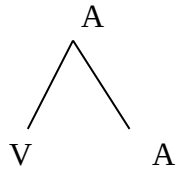


V A

decid -able

In second step the complex word combines with the negative prefix un• A

Prefix



decid(e) -able

Q. Write 3 nouns which take zero suffix to make their plurals.3marks

Sheep

Fish

Deer

Q.Add Prefix to these words without changing their word class.

1. Organize un-organise; pre organize; disorganized

2. Play replay; outplay; overplay

3. Sensitive Oversensitive; supersensitive; hyposensitive

4. Believe unbeliever; disbelieved; misbelieved

5. Tie untie ; necktie; retie

4. Separate borrowing word: gourmate, renaissance, ketchup, pizza, essence, pen, 5 marks

Gourmet

Renaissance

Ketchup

Pizza

Essence

Q. write verbs ie. repiant derived from paint (3 marks)

Painting

Paints

Painted

Q. Endocentric (5marks)

An endocentric construction is one in which there is expansion of more literal kind, it contains an element a word, for which it can be substituted. This word is known as head

For example children in these examples:

- Children
- American children
- Three American Children
- Three American children with a dog.
- Those three American children with a dog.

Q. Explain term zero derivation (3 marks)

Zero derivation, is a kind of word formation involving the creation of a word (of a new word class) from an existing word (of a different word class) without any change in form, which is to say, derivation using only zero. Zero-derivation changes the lexical category of a word without changing its phonological shape. A word formed by zero-derivation or any other productive derivational process becomes lexicalized:

- The English verbs: chair, leaf, ship, table, and weather.
- Mail from the French is another example:

I'm going to mailbox this parcel.

Defien mental lexcm (3 marks)

The **mental lexicon** is **defined** as a **mental dictionary** that contains information regarding a word's **meaning**, pronunciation, syntactic characteristics, and so on. The **mental lexicon** is a construct used in linguistics and psycholinguistics to refer to individual speakers' **lexical**, or word, representations.